

1 Are Heat-Health Systems Socially
2 Blind? Social IsolationPrefecture-Level
3 Older-Adult Solo Household Rate and
4 Dehydration-Related HealthcareLarge-
5 Volume Infusion Therapy Utilization
6 Acrossin Japan: An Ecological Study

7
8 Haruki Saito*¹, Tetsuya Ohira^{1,2}

9 1. Department of Epidemiology, Fukushima Medical University School of Medicine,
10 Fukushima, Japan

11 2. Radiation Medical Science Center for the Fukushima Health Management Survey,
12 Fukushima Medical University, Fukushima, Japan

13 *Corresponding author. Email: m211039@fmu.ac.jp
14
15
16
17

Abstract

Background

Heat-health warning systems rely on meteorological indicators including temperature and wet-bulb globe temperature (WBGT), but heat outcomes may also reflect social vulnerability. Older adults living alone face additional risk through limited ~~are often~~ considered vulnerable to heat because of reduced informal monitoring, delayed help-seeking, and barriers to cooling. ~~We examined whether prefectural~~ Prefecture-level indicators such as elderly solo household rate ~~—have been proposed as routinely available markers of this vulnerability, but such indicators may also reflect a community-level marker of social isolation—was associated with dehydration-related~~ prefecture's underlying population age structure. We examined the association between elderly solo household rate and large-volume infusion therapy utilization, and tested whether this association remained after accounting for population age structure, healthcare utilization, supply, and summer heat exposure.

Methods

We conducted an ecological study of 47 Japanese prefectures using fiscal year 2023 data. ~~infusion~~ Large-volume infusion therapy utilization ($\geq$ (procedure code G004, $\geq$ 500 mL) from the National Database (NDB) Open Data was used as ~~a~~ the outcome, expressed per 100,000 population ~~—level indicator of dehydration-related healthcare utilization—~~. Elderly solo household rate, defined as the percentage of all households consisting of one person aged $\geq$ 65 years, was derived from the 2020 National Census ~~Heatwave~~ and used as the primary exposure. We fit cumulative regression models adding, in turn, prefectural ageing rate, general hospital beds per 100,000 population, and official daily-maximum wet-bulb globe temperature (WBGT) days and mean WBGT were calculated from Japan Meteorological Agency data for ($\geq$ 28°C, June–

September 2023. ~~Predictors were~~). ~~Nonlinearity, metropolitan influence, and an alternative exposure using the older population as the denominator were also examined using simple linear regression and sensitivity analyses.~~

Results

~~Mean elderly solo household rate was $12.6 \pm 1.9\%$ and mean infusion therapy rate was $8,434 \pm 2,587$ per 100,000 population.~~ Elderly solo household rate was associated with infusion therapy utilization ~~in the unadjusted analysis~~ ($\beta = 723.37656.2$; 95% CI, ~~376.52–1,070.21~~; $R^2 = 326.9–985.6$; $p < 0.282001$). Adding ~~prefectural ageing rate attenuated the estimate by 53.3% ($\beta = 306.1$; 95% CI, $-71.3–683.5$; $p = 0.0001$).~~ ~~The~~112), and the association ~~persisted in all sensitivity analyses.~~ ~~Heatwave frequency, WBGT, and air conditioning prevalence were not~~was no longer statistically significant ~~ecological correlates~~. Further adjustment for healthcare supply and WBGT reduced the estimate toward zero ($\beta = -9.4$; 95% CI, $-493.9–475.1$; $p = 0.970$).

Conclusions

~~Community-level social isolation was the only ecological factor significantly associated with infusion therapy utilization. Heat-health systems relying solely on meteorological thresholds may overlook socially vulnerable communities. Integrating social vulnerability indicators may improve equitable climate adaptation.~~

The prefectural elderly solo household rate was associated with large-volume infusion therapy utilization in the unadjusted analysis. However, the estimate was substantially attenuated and was no longer statistically significant after adjustment for population age structure. Further adjustment for healthcare supply and summer heat exposure reduced the estimate toward zero. These findings do not support an independent ecological association between living-alone indicators and infusion

書式を変更: フォント: 斜体 (なし)

[therapy utilization and highlight the need to account for population structure when evaluating social vulnerability in heat-health research.](#)

Keywords: heat-health surveillance; ~~social isolation~~; elderly solo household; ~~dehydration rate~~; [population ageing](#); [healthcare utilization](#); ecological study; Japan

Introduction

Heat-related illness is an increasingly urgent public health challenge in Japan. In 2023, heatstroke caused 1,580 deaths, and emergency transports for suspected heatstroke reached 91,467 cases (Fire and Disaster Management Agency 2023; MHLW 2024). Climate change, population ~~aging~~[ageing](#), and urbanization are expected to increase this burden (IPCC 2021; Günsche et al. 2026). Heat-health responses have therefore emphasized meteorological surveillance. Temperature, humidity, and WBGT are established proximal determinants of heatstroke (Parsons 2006; Blazejczyk et al. 2012), and Japan has implemented WBGT forecasting and heat alert systems (Ministry of the Environment Japan n.d.). These systems are essential, but they primarily describe environmental hazard. ~~They and~~ do not ~~necessarity~~[by themselves](#) identify ~~communities~~[which populations may be](#) least able to receive warnings, act on them, or obtain timely assistance.

~~Heat risk is produced by both environmental exposure and social vulnerability. Older adults are physiologically vulnerable to heat because of~~[Older adults living alone are often considered vulnerable to heat because of reduced informal household monitoring \(for example, a family member or neighbor noticing signs of heat illness or prompting fluid intake and use of cooling\), economic barriers to cooling use, delayed help-seeking, and reduced access to heat-health information, in addition to](#)

physiological vulnerability from reduced sweating capacity, diminished thirst perception, impaired thermoregulation, and chronic disease (Kenney and Munce 2003; Bouchama and Knochel 2002). Among older adults, those living alone may face additional risk through limited informal monitoring, economic barriers to cooling, delayed help-seeking, and reduced access to heat-health information (Vandentorren et al. 2006; Canoui-Poitaine et al. 2006; MIC 2015; Farbotko and Waitt 2011; Semenza et al. 1996; Naughton et al. 2002; Oberai et al. 2025; Zhang et al. 2025). Prefecture-level elderly solo household rate, the percentage of all households consisting of one older adult living alone, has been proposed as a routinely available marker of this social vulnerability. However, because such a measure is calculated over all households, it may also reflect a prefecture's overall population age structure rather than a distinct social characteristic, and this potential confounding has not been formally examined in prior ecological work.

Despite this concern, heat-health research and surveillance remain more developed for monitoring meteorological hazard than social vulnerability. Japanese studies have examined individual risk factors and ambulance transport data (Ng et al. 2014; Miyatake et al. 2012), but nationwide ecological evidence linking social isolation elderly solo household rate to dehydration-related large-volume infusion therapy utilization, and on whether such an association is independent of population age structure, healthcare utilization, supply, and heat exposure, is limited. We therefore examined whether elderly solo household rate could serve as a practical social vulnerability layer complementing climatic indicators in heat-health surveillance was associated with large-volume infusion therapy utilization, and the extent to which this association remained after accounting for prefectural ageing rate, healthcare supply, and official heat-exposure measures.

Materials and methods

1. Study Design

We conducted a nationwide ecological study using Japanese prefectures (N = 47) as the unit of analysis; [the prefectures ranged in total 2023 population from approximately 0.5 million to 14.1 million, together representing Japan's total population of approximately 124.4 million](#). Prefecture-level aggregate data were used because individual household and geospatial information ~~is~~[are](#) not available from NDB Open Data. The study period was fiscal year 2023 (April 2023 through March 2024); ~~climatic exposures were~~[heat exposure was](#) measured [using official Ministry of the Environment wet-bulb globe temperature \(WBGT\) monitoring-site observations](#) during the summer season (June–September [2023](#)), [an unusually hot summer at the time of data collection](#) (Japan Meteorological Agency 2023).

2. Outcome: [Large-Volume](#) Infusion Therapy Utilization

Infusion therapy utilization rates were derived from the 10th NDB Open Data. We extracted claims for infusion procedures involving ≥ 500 mL volume (procedure code: ~~G004~~), [commonly used for rehydration in moderate-to-severe dehydration from heat illness or other acute conditions \(Bouchama and Knochel 2002\)](#) ~~Because the outcome is not heat-specific, we interpreted it as a population-level indicator of dehydration-related healthcare utilization. Rates were calculated per 100,000 population using the 2020 National Census~~. [G004](#)), [used for volume repletion in a range of clinical contexts including, but not limited to, heat-related dehydration; the code is not diagnosis-specific. We describe the outcome as large-volume infusion therapy utilization, a non-specific healthcare-utilization measure that may include a heat-related dehydration component. Rates were calculated per 100,000 population using the 2023 population estimate, temporally aligned with the FY2023 NDB claims](#)

period (a sensitivity analysis using the 2020 Census population denominator is reported in Online Resource 1). We independently reviewed the complete public file structure of the 10th NDB Open Data and confirmed that prefecture-by-age cross-tabulated counts for G004 are not publicly available; sex/age and prefecture counts exist only as separate marginal tables. We therefore could not construct an age-specific or age-standardized outcome and instead adjusted for prefectural ageing rate directly (Section 5). As a construct validity check, we examined the cross-prefectural correlation between infusion therapy utilization ~~rate~~ and the summer 2023 heatstroke ambulance transport rate ~~derived~~ from the Fire and Disaster Management Agency (FDMA) daily transport report (~~Online Resource 1, panel a~~) (Fire and Disaster Management Agency 2023); this provides limited support for the presence of a heat-related component in the outcome rather than validating it as a direct heat-illness measure.

3. Exposure: Elderly Solo Household Rate

Elderly solo household rate was defined as the percentage of all households consisting of one person aged ≥ 65 years, derived from the 2020 National Census. ~~This measure was interpreted as a community-level marker of social isolation. We~~ interpret this measure as a prefecture-level indicator of the burden of older adults living alone relative to all households, rather than a direct individual-level measure of social isolation. As a complementary sensitivity analysis, we also constructed an alternative exposure using the prefecture's population aged ≥ 65 years as the denominator (percentage of the 65+ population living alone; Section 9; Online Resource 1).

4. Climatic Covariates

Heatwave exposure was defined as the number of days with maximum temperature $\geq 35^{\circ}\text{C}$ during June–September 2023, averaged across Japan Meteorological Agency (JMA) weather stations within each prefecture. Mean WBGT was estimated from daily mean temperature (T , $^{\circ}\text{C}$) and relative humidity (RH, %) using a simplified approximation: wet-bulb temperature $T_w = T - (100 - \text{RH})/5$; $\text{WBGT} = 0.7 \times T_w + 0.3 \times T$, averaged over all JMA stations and the summer season (June–September 2023) (Patel et al. 2013; Liljegren et al. 2008). This formula provides an indoor-equivalent WBGT approximation from routinely available meteorological observations. To assess whether additional dimensions of temperature exposure might explain the infusion therapy pattern, four supplementary climate variables were derived from the same JMA station data: (1) mean daily maximum temperature ($^{\circ}\text{C}$); (2) standard deviation of daily maximum temperature as a measure of temperature variability; (3) mean diurnal temperature range (daily maximum minus daily minimum temperature, $^{\circ}\text{C}$); and (4) rapid-change days, defined as the number of days on which the day-to-day change in daily maximum temperature exceeded 5°C . These four variables were examined in univariate regression against infusion therapy utilization and results are presented in Table 2.

5. Additional Covariates

Heat exposure was assessed using official wet-bulb globe temperature (WBGT) observations from the Ministry of the Environment's Heat Illness Prevention Information monitoring network for June–September 2023. For each monitoring site, we counted the number of days on which daily maximum WBGT met or exceeded each threshold, and then averaged these site-specific day-counts within each prefecture (mean 17.9 sites per prefecture; range 5–163). The primary heat metric used in the revised analysis was the prefecture-mean number of days with daily

maximum WBGT $\geq 28^{\circ}\text{C}$; days with WBGT $\geq 31^{\circ}\text{C}$, days with WBGT $\geq 33^{\circ}\text{C}$, and cumulative WBGT excess above 28°C were examined as sensitivity heat metrics (Section 6; Online Resource 1). For descriptive purposes (Table 1), we also report the number of days with daily maximum temperature $\geq 35^{\circ}\text{C}$, averaged across Japan Meteorological Agency stations within each prefecture; this variable was not used as an adjustment variable in the primary models.

5. Prefectural Ageing Rate and Healthcare Supply

Prefectural ageing rate, defined as the percentage of the population aged ≥ 65 years and calculated from the Statistics Bureau of Japan's population estimate as of 1 October 2023, was included as the primary demographic adjustment variable, temporally aligned with the outcome denominator. General hospital beds per 100,000 population (2023 Survey of Medical Institutions, Ministry of Health, Labour and Welfare) were included as the primary healthcare-supply adjustment variable, with general clinics per 100,000 population (same source and year) examined as a sensitivity analysis substituted for beds. Air conditioning prevalence (proportion of households owning at least one air conditioning unit, ~~%) was %~~), obtained from the 2014 National Survey of Family Income and Expenditure. ~~Aging rate (proportion of individuals aged ≥ 65 years) was not available in the analysis dataset and, is retained for descriptive purposes (Table 1) but was therefore not included in the primary adjusted models, because these data describe ownership rather than use.~~

6. Statistical Analysis

~~We summarized all variables using means, standard deviations, medians, and ranges. Given substantial collinearity among ecological predictors (variance inflation factor > 10 in preliminary multivariable models), each factor was examined separately using simple linear regression with infusion therapy utilization as the outcome. This~~

approach estimated policy-interpretable population-level associations rather than a predictive multivariable model.

Three sensitivity analyses assessed the robustness of the primary finding: (1) **Outlier exclusion:** We calculated Cook's distance for each prefecture and excluded observations exceeding $4/N$ ($N=47 \rightarrow 0.085$). (2) **Tokyo exclusion:** We repeated the base model excluding Tokyo, given its extreme urbanization and population density. (3) **Stratified analysis:** We stratified prefectures by the median elderly solo household rate (12.3%) and fit separate regression models within each stratum to explore effect heterogeneity across the exposure distribution.

All models used the originally specified elderly solo household rate as the exposure. We fit four cumulative models: the exposure alone (Model O-A); Model O-A plus prefectural ageing rate (Model O-B); Model O-B plus general hospital beds per 100,000 (Model O-C); and Model O-C plus days with WBGT $\geq 28^{\circ}\text{C}$ (Model O-D). We did not use multicollinearity as a reason to avoid adjustment; variance inflation factors for all covariates in all models were below 3.1 (Table 2). For every model we report the unstandardized coefficient with heteroskedasticity-consistent (HC3) robust 95% confidence intervals and p-value, the fully standardized coefficient, adjusted R^2 , the partial R^2 for the exposure (based on the reduction in ordinary least-squares residual sum of squares, independent of the standard-error estimator), and the corrected Akaike information criterion (AICc).

We conducted the following sensitivity analyses on the fully adjusted model: substituting general clinics for hospital beds; excluding Tokyo, Osaka, and Kanagawa jointly; leave-one-prefecture-out re-estimation (47 iterations); and separately substituting the primary heat metric with WBGT $\geq 31^{\circ}\text{C}$ days, WBGT $\geq 33^{\circ}\text{C}$ days, and cumulative WBGT excess, applying Benjamini-Hochberg false-discovery-rate correction across this exploratory heat-metric set. As a further sensitivity analysis, we

repeated all models using the 2020 Census population denominator for the outcome (Online Resource 1). We assessed nonlinearity by comparing the linear model with a centered quadratic exposure term and a natural cubic spline (3 degrees of freedom), using partial F-tests and AICc; a median-split stratified analysis is reported in Online Resource 1 and did not support a simple dose-response interpretation. We also examined an alternative exposure using the older population as the denominator (Section 9).

Regression coefficients (β), 95% confidence intervals (CIs), R^2 , adjusted R^2 , and p-values are reported, together with regression diagnostics (residuals, leverage, Cook's distance, DFBETAs) for the fully adjusted model. Statistical significance was defined as two-sided $p < 0.05$, interpreted alongside effect estimates and confidence intervals rather than significance alone. Analyses were performed using Python (version 3.14), statsmodels (version 0.14), scikit-learn, and matplotlib.

This study used publicly available aggregate data; individual informed consent was not required, and institutional ethics review was not applicable in accordance with Japanese ethical guidelines for epidemiological research.

Results

1. Descriptive Statistics

Across the 47 Japanese prefectures, the mean elderly solo household rate was $12.6 \pm 1.9\%$ (range: 9.4–17.8%) (Table 1). Mean large-volume infusion therapy utilization was $8,434,022 \pm 2,587,389$ per 100,000 population (range: 4,267,231–13,697,234). Mean heatwave days (maximum temperature $\geq 35^\circ\text{C}$) were 17.9 ± 12.1 days prefectural ageing rate was $31.6 \pm 3.3\%$ (range: 0.0–44.0 days), and mean summer WBGT was

23.2 ± 1.0°C (range: 19.2–26.3°C; 39.0%). Mean general hospital beds were 794 ± 149 per 100,000 (range 509–1,147). Mean number of days with daily maximum WBGT ≥28°C (official Ministry of the Environment data) was 72.9 ± 14.1 (range 27.3–112.3); for descriptive comparison, mean number of days with maximum temperature ≥35°C was 17.9 ± 12.1 (range 0.0–44.0). Mean air conditioning prevalence was 89.7 ± 13.6% (range: 26.6–98.2%).

2. Univariate Regression Analysis

Elderly solo household rate was the only significant predictor of infusion therapy utilization in univariate regression ($\beta = 723.37$; 95% CI, 376.52–1,070.21; $R^2 = 0.282$; $p = 0.0001$) (Table 2). Each one-percentage-point increase in elderly solo household rate was associated with approximately 723 additional infusion procedures per 100,000 population. Heatwave days, WBGT, and air conditioning prevalence were not significantly associated with infusion therapy utilization. Four additional climate variables — mean daily maximum temperature, temperature variability (SD of daily maximum temperature), mean diurnal temperature range, and rapid-change days ($\geq 5^\circ\text{C}$ day-to-day change) — were also not significantly associated (all $p > 0.34$) (Table 2).

3.2. Association Between Elderly Solo Household Rate and Infusion Therapy Utilization: Unadjusted and Adjusted Models

Elderly solo household rate was associated with infusion therapy utilization in the unadjusted model (Model O-A: $\beta = 656.2$; 95% CI, 326.9–985.6; standardized $\beta = 0.521$; $R^2 = 0.272$; adjusted $R^2 = 0.256$; $p < 0.001$; Table 2, Fig. 1). Adding prefectural ageing rate (Model O-B) changed the coefficient to 306.1 (95% CI, –71.3–683.5; standardized $\beta = 0.243$; $p = 0.112$), a descriptive attenuation of 53.3%; the 95% confidence interval crossed zero and statistical significance was lost, although the

interval remains compatible with both a modest positive association and little or no association. Adding general hospital beds per 100,000 (Model O-C) reduced the coefficient further ($\beta = 94.1$; 95% CI, -302.4–490.6; $p = 0.642$); the estimate was similarly attenuated when clinics were substituted for beds (Online Resource 1). Adding WBGT $\geq 28^\circ\text{C}$ days (Model O-D) reduced the coefficient to near zero and reversed its sign ($\beta = -9.4$; 95% CI, -493.9–475.1; $p = 0.970$). Maximum VIF across all models was 3.01 (Table 2).

3. Influence Diagnostics and Sensitivity Analysis: Outlier Exclusion Analyses

Cook's distance analysis for the fully adjusted model identified Hokkaido and Kochi as the most influential observations (Cook's $D = 0.667$, exceeding the $4/N = 0.085$ threshold by approximately 7.8-fold), followed by Kochi (0.190) and Hiroshima (0.144); Hokkaido's WBGT summary averages 163 monitoring sites spanning substantial internal climatic heterogeneity. Leave-one-prefecture-out re-estimation of $4/N = 0.085$. After excluding these two prefectures ($N = 45$), the association strengthened ($\beta = 925.11$; the fully adjusted model (47 iterations) produced coefficients ranging from -107.9 to 92.8, with the 95% CI, -564.74–1,285.47; $R^2 = 0.384$; $p < 0.001$) (Table 2, Panel B).

4. Sensitivity Analysis: Tokyo Exclusion

After excluding Tokyo ($N = 46$), the association remained statistically significant ($\beta = 696.92$; 95% CI, 352.45–1,041.39; $R^2 = 0.274$; $p = 0.0002$) (Table 2, Panel B), crossing zero in every iteration, indicating that the finding attenuated result was not driven by the unique characteristics of Japan's largest metropolitan area—any single prefecture, including Hokkaido. Excluding Tokyo, Osaka, and Kanagawa jointly did not materially change the result ($\beta = -42.0$; 95% CI, -645.6–561.6; $p = 0.891$).

5. Stratified Analysis by Elderly Solo Household Rate

When prefectures were stratified by the median4. Nonlinearity

A quadratic term for elderly solo household rate (12.3%), did not improve model fit relative to the linear fully adjusted model (partial F test $p = 0.142$; AICc 845.6 versus 845.9), nor did a natural cubic spline (3 degrees of freedom; $p = 0.141$; AICc 845.9). A median-split stratified analysis, in which the association differed between strata: ~~It was present in~~ the lower stratum ($N = 23$, rate $< 12.3\%$), the association was statistically significant ($\beta = 1,254.30$; 95% CI, 7.69–2,500.92; $R^2 = 0.173$; $p = 0.049$). ~~It was absent in~~ the higher stratum ($N = 24$, rate $\geq 12.3\%$), the association was, is reported in Online Resource 1; it did not statistically significant ($\beta = 264.50$; 95% CI, -461.52 –990.53; $R^2 = 0.025$; $p = 0.458$) (Table 2, Panel B). The estimated coefficient differed between strata (lower stratum $\beta = 1,254.30$ vs. higher stratum support a simple dose-response interpretation and is not used as a primary result.

5. Alternative Exposure (Denominator) Analysis

As a complementary sensitivity analysis, we examined an alternative exposure defined as the percentage of the prefecture's population aged ≥ 65 years who live alone (denominator: 65+ population, rather than all households). This alternative measure showed no association with infusion utilization, either unadjusted (standardized $\beta = 264.500.0003$; 95% CI, -0.327 – 0.328 ; $p = 0.998$) or in the analogous fully adjusted model (standardized $\beta = -0.034$; 95% CI, -0.298 – 0.231 ; $p = 0.803$), and this pattern was unchanged across the sensitivity analyses described above (Online Resource 1).

6. Construct Validity: FDMA Heatstroke Transport Validation

As a construct validity check, infusion therapy utilization ~~rate~~ was examined in relation to the summer 2023 heatstroke ambulance transport rate (~~per 100,000 population~~) derived from FDMA (Fire and Disaster Management Agency 2023). A ~~significant~~ positive association was observed ($\beta = 70.19$; 95% CI, 36.85–103.53; $r = 0.534$; $p < 0.001$; Online Resource 1, ~~panel a), supporting~~), which provides limited support for the ~~use~~ presence of a heat-related component in the infusion therapy outcome, rather than validating it as a ~~population-level indicator~~ direct measure of heat-related dehydration.

7. Negative Control: Outpatient Utilization Rate

~~To assess whether the primary association might reflect general healthcare access rather than heat-related dehydration specifically, we examined the association between elderly solo household rate and general outpatient utilization rate derived from the R5 Patient Survey (Ministry of Health, Labour and Welfare), which represents all outpatient visits per 100,000 population. General outpatient utilization was significantly associated with elderly solo household rate ($\beta = 123.52$; 95% CI, 44.30–202.74; $R^2 = 0.180$; $p = 0.003$; Online Resource 1, panel b). However, the association was substantially weaker than that observed for infusion therapy: the β coefficient was approximately six-fold smaller (123.52 vs. 723.37) and explained less variance ($R^2 = 0.180$ vs. 0.282). This comparison suggests that while elderly solo household rate captures some component of general healthcare utilization, the much stronger association with infusion therapy may reflect heat-related dehydration beyond what would be expected from general healthcare access patterns alone.~~

7. Comparison-Outcome Analysis

A comparison with general outpatient utilization (R5 Patient Survey) did not support outcome specificity for infusion therapy and is reported in the supplementary material (Online Resource 1), using standardized coefficients only; the previously reported raw-coefficient comparison is not valid because the two outcomes are measured on different scales and has been removed.

Discussion

~~Heat-health surveillance has traditionally focused on where heat occurs. Our findings suggest that surveillance should also identify where people are least able to respond to heat. In this~~ This nationwide ecological analysis, ~~examined whether~~ elderly solo household rate, ~~a routinely available prefecture-level indicator,~~ was ~~robustly~~ associated with ~~large-volume~~ infusion therapy utilization, ~~while heatwave days and WBOT were not significant ecological correlates. This pattern suggests that social isolation may capture a surveillance-relevant dimension of heat vulnerability not represented by meteorological hazard alone.~~

~~The whether any such~~ association ~~is plausible because living alone can amplify heat risk between~~ was independent of population age structure, healthcare supply, and ~~summer heat exposure and care. Older adults may have.~~ An association was present ~~in the unadjusted analysis but was substantially attenuated (53.3%) and lost statistical significance after adjustment for prefectural ageing rate alone, and was further attenuated toward zero after additional adjustment for healthcare supply and heat exposure. An alternative exposure using the older population as the denominator showed no association with the outcome at any stage. These findings do not support~~

an independent ecological association between elderly solo household rate and infusion therapy utilization.

Physiological vulnerability to heat among older adults, including reduced thermoregulation and blunted thirst perception, remains biologically plausible and is well documented (Kenney and Munce 2003; Bouchama and Knochel 2002; Bach et al. 2024; Blatteis 2012) while living alone may reduce informal prompts to). However, the present ecological results indicate that a prefecture-level living-alone indicator does not, by itself, capture an independent surveillance-relevant signal once population age structure is taken into account.

Regional infusion use air conditioning, drink fluids, or seek care. Economic concerns can further limit cooling use despite high air conditioning ownership (MIC 2015; Farbotko and Waitt 2011) Social isolation may also delay recognition of confusion, dehydration, or reduced activity, and may limit receipt of digital heat alerts or interpretation of may also reflect healthcare supply and local treatment practice in addition to underlying morbidity: the estimate was further attenuated after adjusting for general heat-health advice (Semenza et al. 1996; Naughton et al. 2002; Oberai et al. 2025; Zhang et al. 2025) (Berkman et al. 2011) hospital beds, and this pattern was unchanged when clinics were substituted for beds. We did not test whether supply-induced demand specifically explains infusion use; we show only that accounting for healthcare supply further attenuates the association between elderly solo household rate and infusion therapy utilization.

Our findings align with do not contradict international evidence that social isolation increases is associated with heat-related mortality at the individual and small-area level, including during the 1995 Chicago and 2003 European heat waves (Vandentorren et al. 2006; Canouï-Poitrine et al. 2006; Semenza et al. 1996; Conti et al. 2005) This study extends that literature by using nationwide administrative and

census data to link an available household composition indicator with dehydration-related healthcare utilization (2005). Ecological associations and individual-level associations address different questions, and our attenuated ecological finding at the prefecture level should not be read as evidence against individual-level effects of social isolation on heat vulnerability, which this design cannot test.

Japanese studies have identified advanced age and comorbidity as heatstroke risk factors (Ng et al. 2014; Miyatake et al. 2012) but fewer have examined social isolation as The absence of a prefecture-level surveillance indicator. The estimate of approximately 723 additional infusion procedures per 100,000 population robust independent association for each one-percentage-point increase in elderly solo household rate may be useful for prioritizing outreach and resource allocation.

The absence of significant associations for heatwave days and WBGT should not be interpreted as evidence that climate heat exposure is unimportant. Infusion therapy is Alternative WBGT metrics did not heat-specific, prefecture materially alter the interpretation; detailed exploratory results are reported in Online Resource 1.

Prefecture-level climatic averages may also miss neighborhood and indoor exposures, and regional heat adaptation may attenuate simple ecological climate-health associations (Hondula et al. 2017; Harlan et al. 2013; Oka et al. 2023). These considerations support combining meteorological indicators with social and built-environment indicators (2023).

These findings have implications for heat-health surveillance and climate adaptation policy. WBGT-based alerts remain essential, but they cannot determine who is likely to be missed. Prefectures with high elderly solo household rates could prioritize welfare checks, community-based *Mimamori* programs, cooling support, and accessible, plain-language health communication during heat alerts.

A layered system could combine meteorological hazard forecasts with social suggest that prefecture-level social-vulnerability indicators such as elderly solo household rate and cooling access (Romitti et al. 2025). Such an approach would not replace climate alerts; it would guide where outreach, social care, and clinical preparedness should be intensified. Heat adaptation has primarily been framed not be interpreted as a meteorological problem; our findings suggest it should also be understood as a social care problem, supporting integration of social independent heat-vulnerability into existing heat-health surveillance markers without accounting for population age structure, healthcare supply, and improved heat-exposure measures. This is consistent with, rather than replacement of meteorological warning systems a departure from, the original rationale for examining social indicators in heat-health surveillance: it indicates that such indicators require careful demographic validation before being proposed for that purpose.

Strengths include nationwide coverage of all 47 prefectures, use of NDB Open Data with, direct re-examination of the originally specified exposure and outcome, replacement of the original simplified WBGT approximation with official daily-maximum WBGT observations, and a comprehensive insurance claims, and robustness across multiple set of sensitivity, influence, and nonlinearity analyses. The ecological design also demonstrates how routinely available social indicators may strengthen heat-health surveillance.

Several limitations should be considered. First, this is an ecological design; associations at the prefecture level may not reflect individual-level relationships. We, and we cannot determine whether individuals living alone within a prefecture had higher infusion therapy utilization than those living with family. Second, this study did not directly evaluate heat warning systems; “socially blind” should be interpreted as a policy hypothesis, not a direct criticism of existing systems. Third, the cross-sectional design precludes causal inference. Second, elderly solo household rate is a

household-composition measure and is not equivalent to social isolation. Third, infusion therapy utilization (G004) is not specific to dehydration or heat illness and may be used for volume repletion in other contexts, including perioperative fluid management, gastrointestinal illness, infections, and general supportive care; monthly aggregation of claims is not available in prefecture-level NDB Open Data, so a summer peak in utilization could not be verified directly.

Fourth, because multivariable ecological modeling was not feasible owing to substantial collinearity, residual confounding cannot be excluded. Fifth, infusion therapy utilization is not heat-specific and captures dehydration from multiple causes, which may bias associations toward the null. Heat-specific diagnoses would strengthen inference but are not available in prefecture-level NDB Open Data. Additionally, monthly aggregation of procedure claims is not available in prefecture-level NDB Open Data; therefore, it was not possible to verify that infusion therapy utilization peaks during summer months, as would be expected if the outcome primarily captures heat-related dehydration. As a negative control, general outpatient utilization rate (R5 Patient Survey) was also significantly associated with elderly solo household rate ($\beta = 123.52$; 95% CI, 44.30–202.74; $R^2 = 0.180$; $p = 0.003$; Online Resource 1, panel b); however, the β coefficient was approximately six-fold smaller than for infusion therapy (123.52 vs. 723.37) and explained less variance ($R^2 = 0.180$ vs. 0.282), suggesting partial specificity of the primary association beyond general healthcare access. Cross-validation against the 2023 summer FDMA heatstroke ambulance transport rate ($r = 0.53$, $p < 0.001$; Online Resource 1, panel a) further supported the use of infusion therapy as a population-level proxy for heat-related dehydration.

Sixth, unmeasured confounding by socioeconomic status, healthcare access, chronic disease, medication use, housing, and urban heat islands may remain.

Climatic measures were prefecture-level averages and did not capture indoor or neighborhood exposures.

Seventh, WBGT was estimated using a simplified approximation ($T_w = T - (100 - RH)/5$; $WBGT = 0.7 * T_w + 0.3 * T$) applied to daily mean temperatures. This indoor-equivalent formula may underestimate peak outdoor heat stress, which could attenuate the observed association between WBGT and healthcare utilization.

Fourth, prefecture-by-age cross-tabulated G004 counts are not publicly available in the 10th NDB Open Data, precluding an age-specific or age-standardized outcome; we addressed this by adjusting for prefectural ageing rate directly. Fifth, the analysis covers a single fiscal year during an unusually hot summer (2023; Japan Meteorological Agency 2023), limiting generalizability to other years. Sixth, with $N = 47$, adjusted confidence intervals remain wide, and this analysis cannot precisely distinguish a small residual association from no association. Seventh, unmeasured confounding cannot be excluded, including reduced thirst perception and lower fluid intake among older adults, chronic disease prevalence, medication use, infections, gastrointestinal illness, and other individual clinical factors associated with infusion therapy that are not captured at the prefecture level.

Eighth, climatic measures are prefecture-level averages and do not capture indoor or neighborhood exposures; the WBGT summary for Hokkaido in particular averages 163 monitoring sites across substantial internal climatic heterogeneity and was the most influential single observation in regression diagnostics, although the qualitative conclusion was unchanged when Hokkaido was excluded (leave-one-prefecture-out analysis). Ninth, source years differ across variables (2020 Census for elderly solo household rate; 2023 estimates for population, ageing rate, and outcome denominator; 2023 Survey of Medical Institutions for healthcare supply; 2014 survey for air conditioning prevalence), and we aligned the outcome denominator to 2023 to

match the NDB claims period while retaining a 2020 Census-based denominator analysis as a sensitivity check (Online Resource 1).

Finally, air conditioning prevalence was derived from 2014 survey data; while national ownership rates have remained high in Japan, the extreme lower range observed in this study (26.6% in one prefecture) likely (2014 survey) reflects historical underuse in cold-climate prefectures that may have changed in recent years. ownership, not actual use, and cannot establish whether cooling was applied; it is reported descriptively (Table 1) and was not included in the primary adjusted models. The present findings should be interpreted as evidence for cautious, demographically informed use of social-vulnerability indicators in heat-health surveillance prioritization, rather than causative evidence of against considering social factors altogether.

Given the ecological, cross-sectional, and single-year design, these findings should be considered hypothesis-generating. These considerations indicate that firmer conclusions about an independent heat-related illness vulnerability effect of household living arrangement would require age-specific outcome data, multi-year designs, and finer-grained exposure measurement, in addition to the demographic caution highlighted above.

Conclusions

In this nationwide ecological study, elderly solo household rate was associated with dehydration-related healthcare large-volume infusion therapy utilization across Japanese prefectures in univariate analyses. The unadjusted analysis. However, this association was consistent across multiple sensitivity analyses, whereas heatwave

dayssubstantially attenuated and WBGT were not no longer statistically significant ecological correlates after adjustment for prefectural ageing rate, and was further attenuated toward zero after additional adjustment for healthcare supply and summer heat exposure.

These findings suggest that social isolation may be a missing layer in heat-health surveillance. Meteorological thresholds identify hazardous heat, but they may not identify communities where older adults are least able to receive warnings, initiate protective behavior, or obtain assistance. Integrating routinely available social indicators into existing surveillance systems may improve equitable heat adaptation in aging societies.

These findings do not support elderly solo household rate as an independent ecological correlate of infusion therapy utilization once population age structure, healthcare supply, and heat exposure are taken into account. Given the ecological, cross-sectional, and single-year design, these findings should be regarded as hypothesis-generating. They highlight the need for careful demographic validation, including explicit adjustment for age structure and attention to denominator choice, before routinely available social-vulnerability indicators are proposed for heat-health surveillance.

Future individual-level and longitudinal studies, and age-specific administrative data where available, are needed to confirm these population-level findings and to clarify pathways linking social isolation, whether living alone carries an independent heat-vulnerability signal beyond population age structure, and to establish the role of healthcare supply and improved heat-exposure, and dehydration-related healthcare use-exposure measures in explaining prefecture-level utilization patterns.

Acknowledgments

The authors thank the Ministry of Health, Labour and Welfare of Japan for providing access to the NDB Open Data. All data used are publicly available aggregate statistics.

Conflicts of Interest

The authors declare no conflicts of interest.

Data Availability

The NDB Open Data used in this analysis are publicly available from the Ministry of Health, Labour and Welfare of Japan (<https://www.mhlw.go.jp/stf/seisakunitsuite/bunya/0000177182.html>). The analysis code ~~is~~, [derived data, and provenance records are](#) openly available on GitHub (https://github.com/haruki00430/NDB_XXX_heatwave_heatstroke_solo-household-infusion-therapy-japan) and archived on Zenodo (~~;~~ [this revision corresponds to Zenodo version DOI \[\[ZENODO VERSION DOI PENDING\]\]](#) (concept DOI: <https://doi.org/10.5281/zenodo.20740375>).

Author Contributions

Haruki Saito: Conceptualization, Data curation, Formal analysis, Investigation, Methodology, Software, Visualization, Writing – original draft, Writing – review and editing.

Tetsuya Ohira: Conceptualization, Supervision, Writing – review and editing.

Funding

None declared.

Declaration of Generative AI and AI-Assisted

Technologies in the Manuscript Preparation Process

During the preparation ~~and writing of this work~~[the original submission](#), the authors used AI-assisted tools to support manuscript drafting and statistical analysis scripting. Cursor 3.0 (Anysphere) and Google Antigravity (Google) were used for AI-assisted writing and Python code development. Large language models used through these platforms included Claude Sonnet 4.6 and Claude Opus 4.8 (Anthropic~~) and~~[\),](#) GPT-5.5 (OpenAI~~),~~[\),](#) and Gemini 3 Pro (Google). ~~These tools were used only for text drafting and code generation; no generative AI or~~[During preparation of the revision, the authors used](#) AI-assisted tools ~~were used~~[\(Claude, Anthropic, Claude 5/Sonnet family, accessed via Claude Code\)](#) to ~~create, alter, or otherwise process any figures, images, or artwork in this manuscript; support text drafting and the development of~~

[data-processing and statistical-analysis code. The authors executed the code,](#)
[verified all source data, numerical results, tables, and figures, and independently](#)
[determined the statistical methods and interpretation. No generative image tools](#)
[were used.](#) The authors reviewed and edited all ~~AI-assisted~~ outputs and ~~were~~
~~responsible for the study design, selection of statistical methods, interpretation of~~
~~findings, conclusions, and final reference list. The authors~~ take full responsibility for
the ~~integrity and accuracy of the~~ final ~~content~~ [manuscript](#). AI was not listed as an
author.

References

- Bach AJE, Cunningham SJK, Morris NR, Xu Z, Rutherford S, Binnewies S, et al (2024)
Experimental research in environmentally induced hyperthermic older persons: a
systematic quantitative literature review mapping the available evidence.
Temperature (Austin) 11:4-26. <https://doi.org/10.1080/23328940.2023.2242062>
- ~~Berkman ND, Sheridan SL, Donahue KE, Halpern DJ, Crotty K (2011) Low health~~
~~literacy and health outcomes: an updated systematic review. Ann Intern Med 155:97-~~
~~107. https://doi.org/10.7326/0003-4819-155-2-201107190-00005~~
- Blatteis CM (2012) Age-dependent changes in temperature regulation - a mini review.
Gerontology 58:289-295. <https://doi.org/10.1159/000333148>
- Blazejczyk K, Epstein Y, Jendritzky G, Staiger H, Tinz B (2012) Comparison of UTCI to
selected thermal indices. Int J Biometeorol 56:515-535.
<https://doi.org/10.1007/s00484-011-0453-2>
- Bouchama A, Knochel JP (2002) Heat stroke. N Engl J Med 346:1978-1988.
<https://doi.org/10.1056/NEJMra011086> [NEJMra011089](#)

書式を変更: ノルウェー語 (ブークモール)

628 Canouï-Poitrine F, Cadot E, Spira A, Groupe Régional Canicule (2006) Excess deaths
629 during the August 2003 heat wave in Paris, France. Rev Epidemiol Sante Publique
630 54:127-135. [https://doi.org/10.1016/S0398-7620\(06\)76706-2](https://doi.org/10.1016/S0398-7620(06)76706-2)

631 Conti S, Meli P, Minelli G, et al (2005) Epidemiologic study of mortality during the
632 Summer 2003 heat wave in Italy. Environ Res 98:390-399.
633 <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.envres.2004.12.009>

634 Farbotko C, Waitt G (2011) Residential air-conditioning and climate change: voices of
635 the vulnerable. Health Promot J Austr 22:13-15.
636 <https://doi.org/10.1071/HE10013HE11413>

637 Fire and Disaster Management Agency (2023) Daily number of patients with
638 heatstroke transported by ambulance in Japan. Tokyo: FDMA.
639 <https://www.fdma.go.jp/disaster/heatstroke/post4.html>

640 Günsche S, Borg MA, Anikeeva O, Varghese BM, Li Y, Bhandari D, et al (2026)
641 Mortality, morbidity and healthcare costs of short-term high temperatures and
642 heatwaves exposure in older populations: a global systematic review and meta-
643 analysis. Environ Int 208:110129. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.envint.2026.110129>

644 Harlan SL, Declet-Barreto JH, Stefanov WL, Petitti DB (2013) Neighborhood effects on
645 heat deaths: social and environmental predictors of vulnerability in Maricopa County,
646 Arizona. Environ Health Perspect 121:197-204.
647 <https://doi.org/10.1289/ehp.11035321104625>

648 Hondula DM, Balling RC, Andrade R, Krayenhoff ES, Middel A, Urban A, Georgescu M,
649 Sailor DJ (2017) Biometeorology for cities. Int J Biometeorol 61(Suppl 1):59-69.
650 <https://doi.org/10.1007/s00484-017-1412-3>

書式を変更: ノルウェー語 (ブークモール)

651 Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change (IPCC) (2021) Climate Change 2021: The
652 Physical Science Basis. Contribution of Working Group I to the Sixth Assessment
653 Report. Cambridge University Press, Cambridge.
654 <https://www.ipcc.ch/report/ar6/wg1/>

655 [Japan Meteorological Agency \(2023\) Climate characteristics of summer 2023 \(June–](#)
656 [August\): the warmest summer since observations began in 1898 \(mean temperature](#)
657 [anomaly +1.76°C, exceeding the previous record of +1.08°C set in 2010\). Tokyo: JMA.](#)
658 <https://www.jma.go.jp/jma/press/2309/01b/tenko230608.html>

659 Kenney WL, Munce TA (2003) Invited review: aging and human temperature
660 regulation. J Appl Physiol 95:2598-2603.
661 <https://doi.org/10.1152/jappphysiol.00202.2003>

662 ~~[Liljegren JC, Carhart RA, Lawday P, Tschopp S, Sharp R \(2008\) Modeling the wet bulb](#)~~
663 ~~[globe temperature using standard meteorological measurements. J Occup Environ](#)~~
664 ~~[Hyg 5:645-655. https://doi.org/10.1080/15459620802310770](#)~~

665 Ministry of Health, Labour and Welfare (MHLW) (2024) Vital Statistics: Annual status
666 of deaths due to heatstroke in Japan. Tokyo: MHLW.
667 <https://www.mhlw.go.jp/toukei/saikin/hw/jinkou/tokusyu/necchusho24/index.html>

668 Ministry of Internal Affairs and Communications (MIC) (2015) National Survey of
669 Family Income and Expenditure 2014. Tokyo: MIC.

670 Ministry of the Environment, Government of Japan (n.d.) Heat Illness Prevention
671 Information: Heat Stress Index (WBGT) and Heat Stroke Alerts.
672 <https://www.wbgt.env.go.jp/en/>

673 Miyatake N, Sakano N, Murakami S (2012) The relation between ambulance
674 transports stratified by heat stroke and air temperature in all 47 prefectures of Japan

675 in August, 2009: Ecological study. *Environ Health Prev Med* 17:77-80.
676 <https://doi.org/10.1007/s12199-011-0267-9>
677 Naughton MP, Henderson A, Mirabelli MC, et al (2002) Heat-related mortality during a
678 1999 heat wave in Chicago. *Am J Prev Med* 22:221-227.
679 [https://doi.org/10.1016/S0749-3797\(02\)00414-0](https://doi.org/10.1016/S0749-3797(02)00414-0)
680 Ng CF, Ueda K, Takeuchi A, et al (2014) Sociogeographic variation in the effects of
681 heat and cold on daily mortality in Japan. *J Epidemiol* 24:15-24.
682 <https://doi.org/10.2188/jea.JE20130051>
683 Oberai M, Xu Z, Bach A, Forbes C, Jackman E, O'Connor F, et al (2025) A digital heat
684 early warning system for older adults. *NPJ Digit Med* 8:114.
685 <https://doi.org/10.1038/s41746-025-01505-5>
686 Oka K, Honda Y, Hui Phung VL, Hijioka Y (2023) Potential effect of heat adaptation on
687 association between number of heatstroke patients transported by ambulance and
688 wet bulb globe temperature in Japan. *Environ Res* 216:114666.
689 <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.envres.2022.114666>
690 Parsons K (2006) Heat stress standard ISO 7243 and its global application. *Ind Health*
691 44:368-379. <https://doi.org/10.2486/indhealth.44.368>
692 [Patel T, Mullen SP, Santee WR \(2013\) Comparison of methods for estimating wet-bulb](#)
693 [globe temperature index from standard meteorological measurements. *Mil Med*](#)
694 [178:926-933. https://doi.org/10.7205/MILMED-D-13-00117](#)
695 [Romitti Y, Sue Wing I, Spangler KR, Wellenius GA \(2025\) The effects of residential air](#)
696 [conditioning and social vulnerability on heat-related hospitalizations in California.](#)
697 [Environ Int 202:109659. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.envint.2025.109659](#)

698 Semenza JC, Rubin CH, Falter KH, et al (1996) Heat-related deaths during the July
699 1995 heat wave in Chicago. N Engl J Med 335:84-90.
700 <https://doi.org/10.1056/NEJM199607113350203>

701 Vandentorren S, Bretin P, Zeghnoun A, et al (2006) August 2003 heat wave in France:
702 risk factors for death of elderly people living at home. Eur J Public Health 16:583-591.
703 <https://doi.org/10.1093/eurpub/ckl063>

704 ~~Weisskopf MG, Anderson HA, Foldy S, et al (2002) Heat wave morbidity and mortality,
705 Milwaukee, Wis, 1999 vs 1995: an improved response? Am J Public Health 92:830-
706 833. <https://doi.org/10.2105/AJPH.92.5.830>~~

707 Zhang C, Mohamad E, Azlan AA, Wu A, Ma Y, Qi Y (2025) Social media and eHealth
708 literacy among older adults: systematic literature review. J Med Internet Res
709 27:e66058. <https://doi.org/10.2196/66058>

710 Tables and Figures

711 Table 1. Descriptive Statistics of Prefecture-Level Variables (N = 47)

Variable	Unit	N	Mean	SD	Min	Median	Max
Outcome variable							
Large-volume infusion therapy rate utilization (G004, ≥500 mL)	per 100,000	47	8,434.0	2,587.3	4,267.2	7,962.6	13,697.4
Exposure variable							
Elderly solo household rate	%	47	12.6	1.9	9.4	12.3	17.8
Alternative exposure (sensitivity) variable							
% of population aged ≥65 living alone	%	47	17.7	3.1	12.1	17.1	26.1

- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式付きの表
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt, 太字 (なし)
- 書式変更: 標準, 行間: 1 行
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式変更: 標準, 行間: 1 行
- 書式変更: 標準, 左揃え, 行間: 1 行
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt, 太字 (なし)
- 書式変更: 標準, 行間: 1 行
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt
- 書式変更: 標準, 行間: 1 行
- 書式変更: 標準, 左揃え, 行間: 1 行

Variable	Unit	N	Mean	SD	Min	Median	Max
Adjustment variables							
Prefectural ageing rate	%	47	31.6	3.3	22.8	31.7	39.0
General hospital beds	per 100,000	47	794.2	148.5	508.7	800.3	1,146.5
General clinics (sensitivity)	per 100,000	47	84.5	11.9	61.8	85.9	113.0
Climatic variables							
Days with WBGT ≥28°C (official, primary)	days	47	72.9	14.1	27.3	74.7	112.3
Days with WBGT ≥31°C (sensitivity)	days	47	28.7	10.6	6.0	26.5	61.6
Days with WBGT ≥33°C (sensitivity)	days	47	2.9	2.7	0.0	1.7	10.8
Heatwave Days with maximum temperature ≥35°C (descriptive only)	days	47	17.9	12.1	0.0	17.0	44.0
Mean WBGT (June–Sep)	°C	47	23.2	1.0	19.8	23.4	26.3
Covariate							
variable (descriptive only)							
Air conditioning prevalence	%	47	89.7	13.6	26.6	94.8	98.2

WBGT, wet-bulb globe temperature; SD, standard deviation. WBGT days are based on official Ministry of the Environment daily-maximum observations (June–September 2023). Days with maximum temperature ≥35°C are shown for descriptive comparison and were not used as an adjustment variable. Air conditioning prevalence from (2014 National Survey of Family Income and Expenditure) reflects ownership, not use, and was not used as an adjustment variable. Ageing rate and healthcare supply are the primary demographic and healthcare-supply adjustment variables in this analysis.

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式付きの表

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt, 太字 (なし)

書式変更: 標準, 行間 : 1 行

書式付きの表

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式変更: 標準, 行間 : 1 行

書式変更: 標準, 左揃え, 行間 : 1 行

書式付きの表

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt, 太字 (なし)

書式変更: 標準, 行間 : 1 行

書式付きの表

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式を変更: フォント : 9 pt

書式変更: 標準, 行間 : 1 行

書式変更: 標準, 左揃え, 行間 : 1 行

Table 2. Hierarchical Regression Analyses: Associations with Models: Elderly Solo Household Rate and Large-Volume Infusion Therapy Utilization

Panel A. Univariate Linear Regression — All Predictors (N = 47)

Variable Model	Cumulative adjustment	N	Unstd. β (HC3 95% CI)	Std. β (HC3 95% CI)	p	Exposure partial R^2	
Elderly solo household rate (per 1%) O-A	723.37 (376.52, 1,070.21) Unadjusted	47	656.2 (326.9, 985.6)	0.0001 (0.260, 0.783)	<0.001	0.2662	
Air conditioning prevalence (per 1%) O-B	31.23 (-24.98, 87.45) + ageing rate	47	306.1 (-71.3, 683.5)	0.269 (0.057, 0.543)	0.027	0.0050	
O-C	+ ageing rate + hospital beds	47	Heatwave 94 days (per 1 day) (-302.4, 490.6)	-33.96 (-97.42, 29.51)	0.287 (-0.240, 0.390)	0.025	0.0030
O-D	Mean WBGT (per 1°C) + ageing	94	-9.4 (-493.9, 475.1)	0.802 (-0.392, 0.377)	0.970	<0.001	

- 書式を変更
- 書式変更
- 挿入されたセル
- 挿入されたセル
- 挿入されたセル
- 挿入されたセル
- 書式を変更
- 書式を変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更
- 書式を変更
- 書式を変更
- 挿入されたセル
- 挿入されたセル
- 書式を変更
- 書式を変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更
- 書式付きの表
- 書式変更
- 書式を変更
- 書式を変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更
- 削除されたセル
- 書式を変更
- 挿入されたセル
- 挿入されたセル
- 書式を変更
- 書式を変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更
- 書式変更

rate + hospital beds
+ WBGT≥28d

2
(
6
5
8:
6
8,
8
4
7:
3
2)
47

*Additional
climate
variables*

Mean daily maximum temperature (per 1°C)	-145.83 (-861.66; 570.00)	0.684	0.004	-0.018
SD of daily maximum temperature (per 1°C)	-586.99 (-2,060.21; 886.23)	0.427	0.014	-0.008
Mean diurnal temperature range (per 1°C)	-307.32 (-961.69; 347.06)	0.349	0.019	-0.003

Rapid-
change days
≥5°C (per 1
day)

−42.32
(−190.74;
106.10)

0.569

0.007

−0.015

Panel B: Sensitivity Analyses — Elderly Soto Household Rate → Infusion Therapy Utilization

Analysis	N	β (95% CI)	p	R ²	Notes
Base model	47	723.37 (376.52; 1,070.21)	0.0001	0.282	—
Outlier exclusion	45	925.11 (564.74; 1,285.47)	<0.001	0.384	Hokkaido, Kochi excluded
Tokyo exclusion	46	696.92 (352.45; 1,041.39)	0.0002	0.274	Tokyo excluded
Stratified: High elderly soto-HH rate (≥12.3%)	24	264.50 (−461.52; 990.53)	0.458	0.025	—
Stratified: Low elderly soto-HH	23	1,254.30 (7.69; 2,500.92)	0.049	0.173	—

Analysis	N	β (95% CI)	p	R ²	Notes
rate					
(<12.3%)					
Bold indicates $p < 0.05$. Panel A: additional climate variables derived from Japan Meteorological Agency daily temperature data (June–September 2023). Panel B: outlier detection used Cook’s distance threshold $4/N = 0.085$; Hokkaido and Kochi exceeded this threshold. HH, household. Model O-A: exposure alone. Model O-B: Model O-A + prefectural ageing rate. Model O-C: Model O-B + general hospital beds per 100,000. Model O-D: Model O-C + days with WBGT $\geq 28^{\circ}\text{C}$ (each model cumulative). CI, confidence interval (HC3 robust); VIF, variance inflation factor; AICc, corrected Akaike information criterion. Using the 2020 Census population denominator (Online Resource 1, Table S3) yields a closely comparable Model O-A estimate; inferential statistics differ because this analysis uses HC3 robust standard errors.					

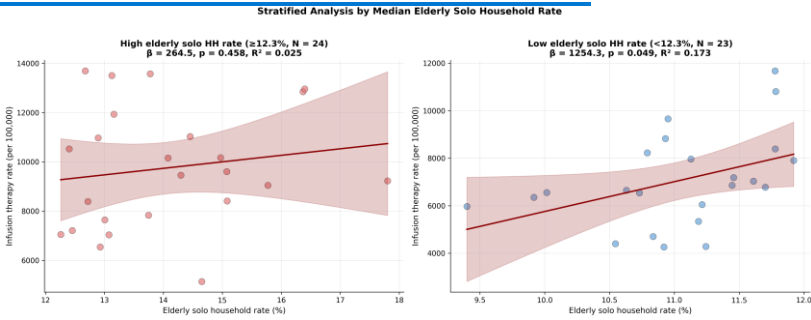
Figure Legends

Fig. 1 ScatterCoefficient plot showing the association betweenfor elderly solo household rate (%) and infusion therapy utilization (per 100,000 population) across 47 Japanese prefectures, stratified by the median elderly solo household rate (12.3%): Solid line represents the linear regression fit within each stratum, Models O-A through O-D, showing unstandardized coefficients with shaded area indicatingHC3 95% confidence interval. Top 5 and bottom 5 prefectures by infusion therapy rate are labeled:

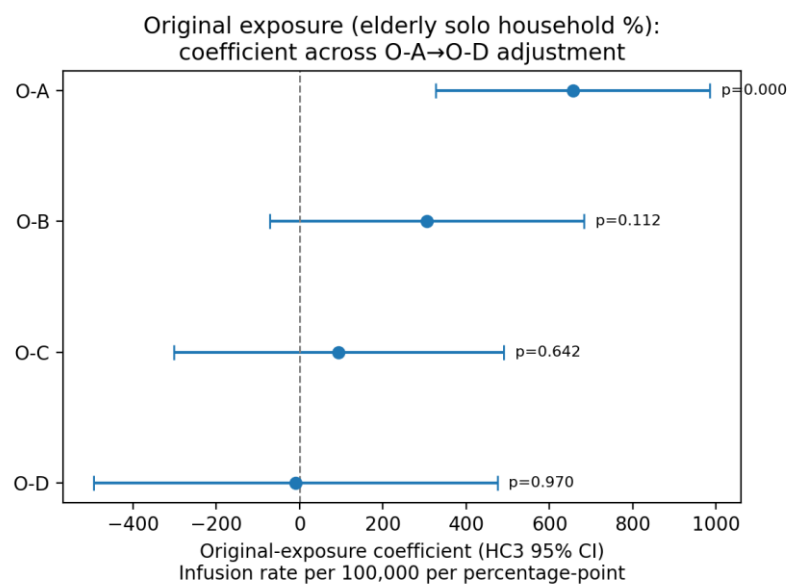
書式を変更: フォント: 太字 (なし)

Fig. 2 Scatter plot showing the association between elderly solo household rate (%) and infusion therapy utilization (per 100,000 population) across all 47 Japanese prefectures. Solid line represents the simple linear regression fit ($\beta = 723.37$, $p = 0.0001$, $R^2 = 0.282$), with shaded area indicating 95% confidence intervals and a zero reference line.

Fig. 1



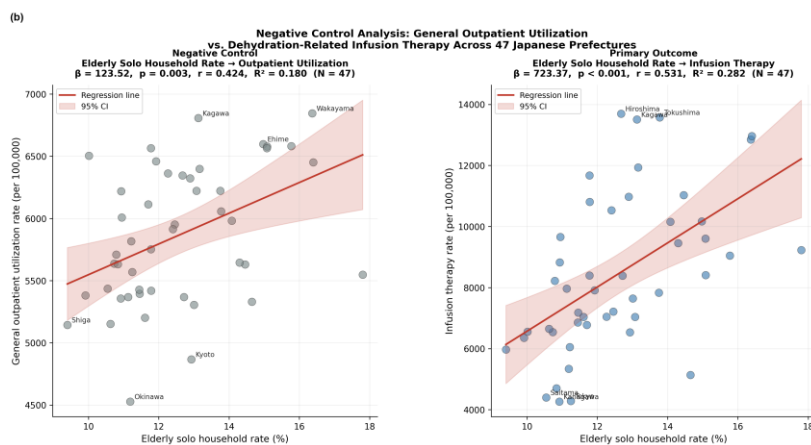
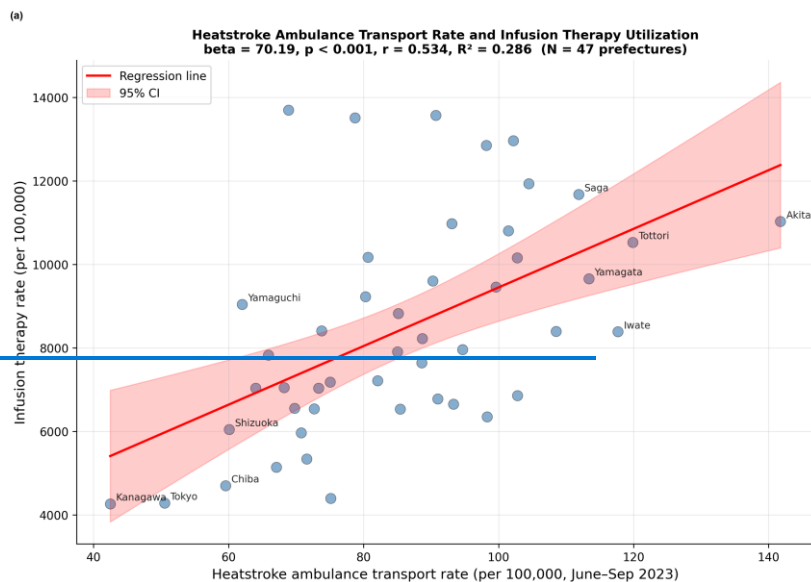




Online Resource 1

Online Resource 1 External validation and negative control analyses. (a) Cross-prefectural association between heatstroke ambulance transport rate (Fire and Disaster Management Agency; Online Resource 1 contains supplementary tables and figures, including the 2020 Census-denominator model hierarchy, the alternative-exposure (denominator) analysis, sensitivity and influence diagnostics, nonlinearity analyses (including the median-split analysis), exploratory WBGT metrics with FDR-adjusted p-values, and the comparison-outcome analysis with general outpatient utilization per 100,000 population, June–September 2023) and infusion therapy utilization rate (per 100,000 population; $\beta = 70.19$; 95% CI, 36.85–103.53; $p < 0.001$; $r = 0.534$), with shaded area indicating 95% confidence interval. Top 5 and bottom 5

768 prefectures by heatstroke transport rate are labeled. This cross-validation supports
769 the use of infusion therapy as a population-level indicator of heat-related
770 dehydration. (b) Side-by-side scatter plots comparing the association between elderly
771 solo-household rate (%) and general outpatient utilization rate (negative control; R5
772 Patient Survey; $\beta = 123.52$; 95% CI, 44.30–202.74; $p = 0.003$; $R^2 = 0.180$; left panel)
773 and infusion therapy utilization rate (primary outcome; NDB Open Data; $\beta = 723.37$;
774 95% CI, 376.52–1,070.21; $p < 0.001$; $R^2 = 0.282$; right panel) across 47 Japanese
775 prefectures. The association with infusion therapy was approximately six-fold
776 stronger, supporting partial specificity of the primary association beyond general
777 healthcare access.



書式変更: First Paragraph